

Calculus II

Improper integrals

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2019

Outline

- 1 Improper Integrals
 - Type I: Infinite Intervals
 - Type II: Discontinuous Integrands
 - A Comparison Test for Improper Integrals

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Improper Integrals

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Definition (Improper Integral)

The integral

$$\int_a^b f(x)dx$$

is called improper if one or more of the endpoints a and b is infinite, or if f has an infinite discontinuity on $[a, b]$.

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- Also notice $\lim_{t \rightarrow \infty} A(t) = \lim_{t \rightarrow \infty} \left(1 - \frac{1}{t} \right) = 1$.
- We say that the area A is equal to 1 and write $\int_1^{\infty} \frac{1}{x^2} dx = \lim_{t \rightarrow \infty} \int_1^t \frac{1}{x^2} dx = 1$.

Definition (Improper Integral of Type I)

- ❶ If $\int_a^t f(x)dx$ exists for every $t \geq a$, then

$$\int_a^\infty f(x)dx = \lim_{t \rightarrow \infty} \int_a^t f(x)dx$$

if the limit exists.

- ❷ If $\int_t^b f(x)dx$ exists for every $t \leq b$, then

$$\int_{-\infty}^b f(x)dx = \lim_{t \rightarrow -\infty} \int_t^b f(x)dx$$

if the limit exists.

$\int_a^\infty f(x)dx$ and $\int_{-\infty}^b f(x)dx$ are called convergent if the corresponding limit exists and divergent if it doesn't exist.

- ❸ If both $\int_a^\infty f(x)dx$ and $\int_{-\infty}^a f(x)dx$ are convergent, then we define

$$\int_{-\infty}^\infty f(x)dx = \int_{-\infty}^a f(x)dx + \int_a^\infty f(x)dx.$$

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Determine whether $\int_1^{\infty} \frac{1}{x} dx$ is convergent or divergent.

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$$\begin{aligned}\int_1^{\infty} \frac{1}{x} dx &= \lim_{t \rightarrow \infty} \int_1^t \frac{1}{x} dx \\ &= \lim_{t \rightarrow \infty} [\ln x]_1^t\end{aligned}$$

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$$\begin{aligned} \int_{-\infty}^0 \frac{1}{1+x^2} dx &= \lim_{t \rightarrow -\infty} \int_t^0 \frac{1}{1+x^2} dx = \lim_{t \rightarrow -\infty} [\arctan x]_t^0 \\ &= \lim_{t \rightarrow -\infty} (\arctan 0 - \arctan t) = \lim_{t \rightarrow -\infty} (0 - \arctan t) \\ &= 0 - \left(-\frac{\pi}{2}\right) = \frac{\pi}{2} \end{aligned}$$

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- If $p > 1$, then $p - 1 > 0$, so as $t \rightarrow \infty$, $t^{p-1} \rightarrow \infty$ and $1/t^{p-1} \rightarrow 0$.
- Therefore $\int_1^\infty \frac{1}{x^p} dx = \frac{1}{p-1}$ if $p > 1$, and so the integral is convergent.
- If $p < 1$, then $p - 1 < 0$, so $\frac{1}{t^{p-1}} = t^{1-p} \rightarrow \infty$ as $t \rightarrow \infty$.

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- Assume $p \neq 1$.

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- If $p > 1$, then $p - 1 > 0$, so as $t \rightarrow \infty$, $t^{p-1} \rightarrow \infty$ and $1/t^{p-1} \rightarrow 0$.
- Therefore $\int_1^\infty \frac{1}{x^p} dx = \frac{1}{p-1}$ if $p > 1$, and so the integral is convergent.
- If $p < 1$, then $p - 1 < 0$, so $\frac{1}{t^{p-1}} = t^{1-p} \rightarrow \infty$ as $t \rightarrow \infty$.
- Therefore $\int_1^\infty \frac{1}{x^p} dx$ is divergent if $p < 1$.

Theorem

$\int_1^\infty \frac{1}{x^p} dx$ converges if $p > 1$ and diverges if $p \leq 1$.

Type II: Discontinuous Integrands

We can use the same approach if the function f is discontinuous at one of the endpoints a and b in the integral $\int_a^b f(x)dx$.

For example, $\frac{1}{\sqrt{x-2}}$ is discontinuous at 2, so we might wonder if the integral

$$\int_2^5 \frac{1}{\sqrt{x-2}} dx$$

exists.

Definition (Improper Integral of Type II)

- 1 If f is continuous on $[a, b)$ and discontinuous at b , then

$$\int_a^b f(x)dx = \lim_{t \rightarrow b^-} \int_a^t f(x)dx$$

if the limit exists.

- 2 If f is continuous on $(a, b]$ and discontinuous at a , then

$$\int_a^b f(x)dx = \lim_{t \rightarrow a^+} \int_t^b f(x)dx$$

if the limit exists.

$\int_a^b f(x)dx$ is called convergent if the corresponding limit exists and divergent if it doesn't exist.

- 3 If f has a discontinuity at c , where $a < c < b$, and both $\int_a^c f(x)dx$ and $\int_c^b f(x)dx$ are convergent, then we define

$$\int_a^b f(x)dx = \int_a^c f(x)dx + \int_c^b f(x)dx$$

Example

Find $\int_2^5 \frac{1}{\sqrt{x-2}} dx$.

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$$\begin{aligned} \int_2^5 \frac{1}{\sqrt{x-2}} dx &= \lim_{t \rightarrow 2^+} \int_t^5 \frac{1}{\sqrt{x-2}} dx \\ &= \lim_{t \rightarrow 2^+} \left[? \right]_t^5 \end{aligned}$$

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Example

Find $\int_2^5 \frac{1}{\sqrt{x-2}} dx$.

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- Therefore the integral diverges.
- If we had not noticed the vertical asymptote, we might have made the following **mistake**:

$$\int_0^3 \frac{dx}{x-1} = [\ln |x-1|]_0^3 = \ln 2 - \ln 1 = \ln 2.$$

A Comparison Test for Improper Integrals

Sometimes it's impossible to find the exact value of an integral, but we still want to know if it's convergent or divergent. For such cases, we can sometimes use the following theorem.

Theorem (Comparison Theorem)

Suppose f and g are continuous and $f(x) \geq g(x) \geq 0$ for $x \geq a$.

- ❶ *If $\int_a^\infty f(x)dx$ is convergent, then $\int_a^\infty g(x)dx$ is convergent.*
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Sometimes it's impossible to find the exact value of an integral, but we still want to know if it's convergent or divergent. For such cases, we can sometimes use the following theorem.

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Suppose f and g are continuous and $f(x) \geq g(x) \geq 0$ for $x \geq a$.

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A similar theorem holds for Type II improper integrals.

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Show that $\int_0^{\infty} e^{-x^2} dx$ is convergent.

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- Therefore $\int_1^{\infty} \frac{1 + e^{-x}}{x} dx$ is divergent by the Comparison Theorem.

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$|OQ_1||OP_1| = |OA|^2 = 1 = |OQ_2||OP_2|$. Therefore $\frac{|OQ_1|}{|OP_2|} = \frac{|OQ_2|}{|OP_1|}$ and so $\triangle OQ_2Q_1$ is similar to $\triangle OP_1P_2$.

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If we let $P_2 \rightarrow P_1$, i.e., $\Delta \rightarrow 0$, we get $\frac{|OP_2|}{|OP_1|} \rightarrow 1$.

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If we let $P_2 \rightarrow P_1$, i.e., $\Delta \rightarrow 0$, we get $\frac{|OP_2|}{|OP_1|} \rightarrow 1$. In strict mathematical language: for every $\varepsilon > 0$ there exists $\delta > 0$ such that when $\Delta < \delta$ we have that $1 > \frac{|OP_2|}{|OP_1|} > 1 - \varepsilon$.

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$|Q_1 Q_2| = \frac{|OP_2|}{|OP_1|} \frac{\Delta}{1+x_2^2}$. For any $\varepsilon > 0$, can choose Δ : $1 < \frac{|OP_2|}{|OP_1|} < 1 + \varepsilon$.

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$$|Q_1 Q_2| < (1 + \varepsilon) \frac{\Delta}{1+x_2^2}$$

$|Q_1 Q_2| = \frac{|OP_2|}{|OP_1|} \frac{\Delta}{1+x_2^2}$. For any $\varepsilon > 0$, can choose Δ : $1 < \frac{|OP_2|}{|OP_1|} < 1 + \varepsilon$.

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$$\begin{array}{rcl} \frac{\Delta}{1+x_1^2} & < & (1 + \varepsilon) \frac{\Delta}{1+x_1^2} \\ \frac{\Delta}{1+x_2^2} & < & (1 + \varepsilon) \frac{\Delta}{1+x_2^2} \\ & \vdots & \\ \frac{\Delta}{1+x_n^2} & < & (1 + \varepsilon) \frac{\Delta}{1+x_n^2} \end{array}$$

$$|Q_{n-1} Q_n| < (1 + \varepsilon) \frac{\Delta}{1+x_n^2}$$

$$|Q_1 Q_2| = \frac{|OP_2|}{|OP_1|} \frac{\Delta}{1+x_2^2}. \text{ For any } \varepsilon > 0, \text{ can choose } \Delta: 1 < \frac{|OP_2|}{|OP_1|} < 1 + \varepsilon.$$

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$$\vdots$$

$$\frac{\Delta}{1+x_n^2} < |Q_{n-1} Q_n| < (1 + \varepsilon) \frac{\Delta}{1+x_n^2}$$

$$\sum_{i=1}^n \frac{\Delta}{1+x_i^2} < \sum_{i=1}^n |Q_{i-1} Q_i| < (1 + \varepsilon) \sum_{i=1}^n \frac{\Delta}{1+x_i^2}$$

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$$\int_0^N \frac{dx}{1+x^2} < \lim_{\Delta} \sum |Q_{i-1} Q_i| < (1 + \varepsilon) \int_0^N \frac{dx}{1+x^2}$$

Let $\Delta \rightarrow 0$.

$$|Q_1 Q_2| = \frac{|OP_2|}{|OP_1|} \frac{\Delta}{1+x_2^2}. \text{ For any } \varepsilon > 0, \text{ can choose } \Delta: 1 < \frac{|OP_2|}{|OP_1|} < 1 + \varepsilon.$$

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Let $\Delta \rightarrow 0$. Next take $N \rightarrow \infty$.

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$$\begin{array}{ccc} \downarrow & & \downarrow \\ \int_0^\infty \frac{dx}{1+x^2} < \lim_{\Delta, N} \sum |Q_{i-1} Q_i| < (1 + \varepsilon) \int_0^\infty \frac{dx}{1+x^2} \end{array}$$

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Let $\Delta \rightarrow 0$. Next take $N \rightarrow \infty$. Finally take $\varepsilon \rightarrow 0$

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$$\begin{array}{ccccc} \downarrow & & \downarrow & & \downarrow \\ \int_0^\infty \frac{dx}{1+x^2} & = & \lim_{\Delta, N, \varepsilon} \sum |Q_{i-1} Q_i| & = & \int_0^\infty \frac{dx}{1+x^2} \end{array}$$

Let $\Delta \rightarrow 0$. Next take $N \rightarrow \infty$. Finally take $\varepsilon \rightarrow 0$, use squeeze thm.

$|Q_1 Q_2| = \frac{|OP_2|}{|OP_1|} \frac{\Delta}{1+x_2^2}$. For any $\varepsilon > 0$, can choose Δ : $1 < \frac{|OP_2|}{|OP_1|} < 1 + \varepsilon$.

$$\int_0^\infty \frac{dx}{1+x^2} = \lim_{\Delta, N, \varepsilon} \sum |Q_{i-1} Q_i|$$

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The points $Q_1, Q_2, \dots$ see the segment OA from an angle of $\frac{\pi}{2}$.

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Therefore, by Euclidean geometry, the points $Q_1, Q_2, \dots$ lie on the circle C with radius $\frac{1}{2}$ and center $(0, \frac{1}{2})$.

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Therefore, by Euclidean geometry, the points $Q_1, Q_2, \dots$ lie on the circle C with radius $\frac{1}{2}$ and center $(0, \frac{1}{2})$. Therefore $\sum |Q_{i-1} Q_i|$ approximates half of the circumference of the circle C .

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$|Q_1 Q_2| = \frac{|OP_2|}{|OP_1|} \frac{\Delta}{1+x_2^2}$. For any $\varepsilon > 0$, can choose Δ : $1 < \frac{|OP_2|}{|OP_1|} < 1 + \varepsilon$.

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$$\int_{-\infty}^{\infty} \frac{dx}{1+x^2} = \text{circumference of } C$$

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$$\int_0^\infty \frac{dx}{1+x^2} = \lim_{\Delta, N, \varepsilon} \sum |Q_{i-1} Q_i|$$

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Therefore, by Euclidean geometry, the points $Q_1, Q_2, \dots$ lie on the circle C with radius $\frac{1}{2}$ and center $(0, \frac{1}{2})$. Therefore $\sum |Q_{i-1} Q_i|$ approximates half of the circumference of the circle C . By symmetry,

$$\int_{-\infty}^{\infty} \frac{dx}{1+x^2} = \text{circumference of } C = 2\pi \left(\frac{1}{2}\right) = \pi,$$

as desired.

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The points $Q_1, Q_2, \dots$ see the segment OA from an angle of $\frac{\pi}{2}$.

Therefore, by Euclidean geometry, the points $Q_1, Q_2, \dots$ lie on the

circle C with radius $\frac{1}{2}$ and center $(0, \frac{1}{2})$. Therefore $\sum |Q_{i-1} Q_i|$ approximates half of the circumference of the circle C . By symmetry,

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as desired.

We finish with illustration of the integral $\int_{-\infty}^{\infty} \frac{1}{1+x^2} dx$. Recall

$$|Q_1 Q_2| \approx \frac{\Delta}{1+x_2^2}.$$